

The Origins of Post-Conflict Memorialization: Evidence from the U.S. Civil War *

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Abstract

In this paper we explore the political logic behind the construction of Confederate monuments in the post-Civil War U.S. South. Drawing on distinct literatures in American and comparative politics, we examine competing logics for where memorial builders constructed monuments. We find that monuments were disproportionately built in counties with a higher share of Blacks and, especially, in those high-Black-share counties where non-Democratic candidates were electorally competitive two decades after the end of Reconstruction. These findings underscore that Confederate memorialization primarily reflected local efforts to reinforce racial hierarchies in high Black-share counties, especially those where political power remained contested. The broader implication for the burgeoning literature on the long-term effects of memorialization is that in order to fully understand the legacy of memorialization scholars should first account for the original logic of where and why monuments were placed.

Keywords: memorialization, Confederate monuments, racial politics, legacies of conflict, post-conflict politics

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1 Introduction

There is an emerging consensus in the social sciences that post-conflict memorials have a consequential impact on political and social dynamics in communities where they are located. Studies have shown that commemorative interventions, ranging from large museums and exhibitions to decentralized grassroots efforts at memorialization, shape the understanding of the past and influence political behavior in the present, particularly toward groups associated with historical perpetrators (e.g. Balcells et al., 2022; Balcells and Voytas, 2026; De Juan et al., 2025; Turkoglu et al., 2023; Zhukov, 2025). In the American South – which is the locus of this paper – scholars have shown that the presence of memorials dedicated to the Confederacy, the losing side in the U.S. Civil War (1861-65), was associated with higher Democratic vote share and lower turnout in the immediate aftermath of the war (Taylor, 2025) and informed the local pattern of lynchings (Ankori-Karlinsky, 2026). Research suggests that Confederate memorials continue to shape local politics in the present. It has been argued that Blacks who reside in counties where there are Confederate memorials tend to have a higher sense of racial injustice, feel less integrated into the community, and face higher economic discrimination (Shackel, 2001; Wager and Britt, 2026; O’Connell, 2020; Williams, 2021), whereas removal of Confederate memorials alters the dynamics of racial tensions (Rahnama, 2025b; Ankori-Karlinsky, 2026).

An underexplored aspect of memorialization in much of this work is the original logic of memorial placement. This is an omission that requires attention because insofar as memorials leave a lasting effect on local communities, which communities are affected is determined by original memorial builders and not by subsequent generations. Put simply, the legacy of memorialization is endogenously shaped by the decision of original monument builders where to place them. There is the general uncontroversial assumption that memorial building is a political act (for the theoretical claim see Nora (1989) and for historical work in the U.S. South Brundage (2009); Cox (2019); Janney (2008)), but it also bears noting that only 40% of Southern counties have at least one Confederate monument by 1965.¹ The selective nature of memorial construction requires an explanation.

Competing potential political logics dictate different dynamics of memorialization. For instance, racial threat theory suggests that White elites might feel a greater need to control the political narrative in communities that are predominantly Black (Key, 1949; Blalock, 1967). This would mean that Confederate monuments should have been built in counties with largest Black populations. A related, but distinct, argument holds that Whites might be particularly sensitive to Black economic competition (Soule, 1992; Olzak, 1994; Tolnay and Beck, 1995), and that we should expect monuments to emerge where Southern Blacks have high levels of economic attainment. Alternatively, an important strand in the political violence literature notes that, in

¹Throughout this paper, we focus specifically on monuments, not other types of memorials, because monuments were the primary mode of memorialization in the period under study.

democracies, intergroup tensions run highest where the dominant group and the outgroup have similar voting power (Dhattiwala and Biggs, 2012; Balcells, 2017; Gadjanova, 2022). This raises an expectation that monuments should have been constructed in high Black-share counties where non-Democratic candidates continued to perform well after the Reconstruction and before the full onset of Jim Crow.² In research on political violence, there is also a competing account that challenges the notion that all memorialization is about inter-group contestation. This research agenda proposes that monuments are more likely to be built in communities that experienced heaviest losses (Winter, 1995; Zhukov, 2025; Carozzi et al., 2026). In this telling, memorialization should be most likely in Confederate counties where most people died due to the Civil War. Alongside these demand-side accounts, it is also important to consider supply-side factors that drive monument building, such as the financial and organizational capacity of Whites in the different localities.

In this paper, we provide the most systematic examination to date of the logic of Confederate monument construction in the postbellum South (1865–1965) in order to better understand the factors that shape memorialization. We also examine how the logics driving monument building changed over time, with a particular focus on the most intensive period of memorial construction, 1900–1916, when 55% of all Confederate monuments were built.

We find that the racial threat and voting-parity arguments best explain the dynamics of Confederate monument-building. There is a strong correlation between the higher presence of Blacks and monument construction. In a novel turn in this literature, we find that the likely reason that Confederate monuments were built selectively only in some Black-majority communities is because of political competition there. In 1900–1916, the association between Black population share and Confederate monument construction was strongest in counties that were most politically competitive in the 1892–96 presidential elections, i.e., where non-Democratic candidates received around 50% of the vote. During that period, there is also some evidence to suggest that economic competition from Blacks spurred on memorialization. Supply-side factors associated with White wealth and organizational capacity – variables like White population density and urbanization rates – had their own, albeit a less important, role in explaining memorialization. Evidence suggests that wartime losses do not account for any spatial or temporal patterns of memorialization. All in all, our findings indicate that Confederate monuments were a tool of White suppression of Black political voices, and one that especially affected localities where Blacks continued to exercise political expression into the 1890s. It is in those communities that the legacy of Confederate memorials has been felt particularly intensely from the post-Civil War decades to the present.

This study contributes to the literature on the dynamics of racial politics in the United States by providing the most systematic examination of the competing logics of Confederate memori-

²In established democracies, demographic parity between two groups automatically translates into voting parity. This is not the case in much of the U.S. South post-Reconstruction, as in many majority-Black counties, Black vote was already effectively suppressed by 1890.

alization. Our results speak to a growing literature explaining monument building (Ankori-Karlinsky, 2026; O’Connell, 2022) and related postbellum phenomena, including lynching (Ankori-Karlinsky, 2026; Henderson et al., 2021; Testa and Williams, 2026; Tolnay and Beck, 1995) and the formation of United Daughters of the Confederacy (UDC) chapters (Rahnama, 2025a). Our approach differs from this work in several respects. First, we provide a systematic test that incorporates the logics of both racial threat and electoral threat theories. Our study is closest to O’Connell (2022), who also tests multiple factors influencing monument construction over a hundred-year period. However, O’Connell’s primary measure of racial threat (formation of NAACP chapters) starts only in 1910, a decade after intensive memorialization begins, and several of the theoretical logics that we test are omitted.³ More importantly, O’Connell, like much of the recent literature, does not consider Black *political* competition as a relevant factor.

The paper also contributes to the growing social science literature on the post-conflict dynamics of symbolic politics, which includes monument-building (e.g. Balcells et al., 2022; Balcells and Voytas, 2026; De Juan et al., 2025; Turkoglu et al., 2023; Zhukov, 2025). Confederate memorialization is a particularly interesting instance of symbolic politics, because it is about grassroots monument-building by a losing side that seeks to remake the post-war political consensus. Such efforts to rewrite history by war losers can take the form of monument building, cultural output (e.g. films or novels), or regional education initiatives. Few of these attempts to reshape symbolic politics have received much attention in political science to date. Our findings also connect memorialization to research on political competition and intergroup conflict. Across civil-war and electoral settings in divided societies, demographic or political parity between rival groups, a context in which neither side can take its position for granted and the stakes of local control thus become especially high, has been associated with greater intergroup violence and with the threat perceptions and group anxieties that can sustain it (Balcells, 2010, 2017; Balcells et al., 2016; Dhattiwala and Biggs, 2012; Gadjanova, 2022). This project extends this argument into the realm of post-conflict symbolic politics.

2 Logics of Confederate Memorialization

In this section, we briefly summarize, and ground in the existing literature, the competing theoretical logics of monument building, in the context of intergroup competition in the U.S. South. The reason we turn to theories of intergroup conflict is because monument builders’ stated motivations are both unreliable and romanticized. Getting a Confederate monument built was a product not only of an initial organizational push by local chapters of Confederate heritage groups and support from municipal and county officials, but also from a sustained stream of donations from local residents. Thus, structural factors seem more important in

³O’Connell (2022) drops more than half of Southern counties by restricting the sample to counties whose boundaries did not change between 1865 and 2010. We use geographic extrapolation to include all Southern counties.

explaining the dynamics of memorialization than elite rhetoric.

Racial threat theory holds that dominant groups respond to the perceived encroachment of subordinate groups with intensified efforts at social control. In his classic study of Southern politics, Key (1949) observed that White racial hostility and the machinery of Black subordination were most developed in the “Black belt” counties where African Americans constituted the largest share of the population. Blalock (1967) formalized this insight into a general proposition: as the relative size of a subordinate group grows, members of the dominant group perceive greater threats to their position and respond with increased discrimination and repression.

Blalock also emphasized that Black threat could express itself not only in the relative size of that group, but, alternatively, through Blacks posing an economic threat by competing with Whites for jobs, land, and status (Olzak, 1994). On this account, repressive responses should be most pronounced not simply where Blacks were numerous, but where their political participation or socioeconomic advancement posed a credible challenge to White dominance. A large empirical literature has shown that Black population share and Black economic competition predict the incidence of lynching (Soule, 1992; Tolnay and Beck, 1995), the adoption of disenfranchising institutions and other instruments of White supremacist control (Kousser, 1974).

Research on political violence in the context of intergroup rivalry helps clarify why political competition should raise the stakes of symbolic claims in public space. As rival groups approach parity, neither side can take its position for granted, and uncertainty over local control heightens threat perceptions and incentives to intervene. In her work on the Spanish Civil War, Balcells (2010; 2017) finds that direct violence against civilians increased as prewar electoral support for rival political camps approached parity, since local rivalry gave civilians and armed actors stronger reasons to cooperate when violence could shift local control. A related pattern appears in post-agreement Northern Ireland, where Balcells et al. (2016) show that low-intensity sectarian violence was most common where similarly sized Catholic and Protestant communities were geographically in contact, as these were conditions that intensified threat perceptions and made violence easier to sustain.

Electoral contests create similar intergroup pressures outside wartime contexts. Across seventeen African countries, Gadjanova (2022) finds that close elections shifted respondents toward ethnic rather than national identification, heightened perceptions of discrimination and group-status anxiety, and weakened interethnic trust. Studies of Gujarat in India likewise link close or polarized winner-take-all elections to communal violence (Dhattiwala and Biggs, 2012). These studies link parity to violence and group identification. We extend this argument to symbolic politics: if monuments allow sponsors to claim the public space and define who represents the community, political competition should increase the value of making that claim permanent.

If Confederate monuments functioned as symbolic instruments of racial control – public assertions of White supremacy in a contested political space – they should have been erected

disproportionately in counties with larger Black populations and/or where Black economic and educational attainment was rising and Black labor-market competition threatened lower-income Whites. Furthermore, we expect more intense memorialization in places where Blacks posed the most obvious political threat to Whites. Because Black political participation was central to much non-Democratic opposition, especially in high Black-share areas, we expect the association between Black population share and Confederate monument construction to be strongest where support for non-Democratic candidates approached 50%. At one extreme, in areas where Democrats already secured a decisive majority, the additional political value of such a symbolic assertion should have been lower. At the other extreme, in the few high Black-share areas where Democrats were too weak, they would not have had the strength to sponsor memorials that made a lasting claim on the public space. By treating electoral competition as a condition of racial threat, we can better understand why monuments were placed in particular high Black-share areas but not others – placement reflected not simply the composition of the local population but also the balance of power in local politics.

Outside of this group contestation logic, existing research in comparative politics identifies a different driver of memorialization: local wartime loss. This alternative suggests that the impetus for memorialization stems from communities' experiences of wartime sacrifice. In this vein, Winter (1995) traces how mourning after mass death became embedded in commemorative sites and practices across Europe. Carozzi et al. (2026) show how more memorials and veterans' associations were set up in British localities where WWI losses were heaviest. In Moscow, memorials to victims of Stalinist repression are more likely to appear at sites with higher cumulative death tolls (Zhukov, 2025). In the U.S. South, wartime mortality varied sharply across communities, leaving the hardest-hit counties with more bereaved households and surviving comrades, as well as veterans' organizations with strong reasons to preserve the dead in public memory. This suggests that Confederate monuments might be more common in counties with heaviest wartime losses. A complementary way to operationalize the salience of wartime losses is to consider major battlefield sites as another focal point for memorialization (Linenthal, 1993; Lloyd, 1998; Smith, 2008).

The arguments above explain why local sponsors might want to build a monument. Constructing one, however, required substantial funds and organizational effort. While a small number of large monuments drew donations from beyond the immediate area where the monument was placed⁴, most standard unknown soldier monuments that comprise the bulk of our dataset were financed locally (Winberry, 1983). Most monument campaigns originated with local chapters of Confederate heritage organizations, particularly the United Daughters of the Confederacy (UDC) and the United Confederate Veterans. These groups secured public sites and the necessary approvals, selected monument designs, and raised the funds required for con-

⁴For instance, the 1907-dedicated memorial for Jefferson Davis, the only president of the Confederacy, reportedly cost more than \$70,000, approximately \$2.5 million in 2026 dollars (Minutes of the Thirteenth Annual Convention of the United Daughters of the Confederacy, 1906). Fundraising began in 1900 and drew donations from members across the South.

struction (Cox, 2019, chap. 4, esp. p. 51).⁵ The process of raising sufficient funds was slow-going, often taking many years.⁶ The observed geographic distribution of memorialization may reflect not only places where the demand was strongest, but also where sponsors could translate that demand into a completed monument through access to greater local resources. Thus, we treat the supply-side measures in the empirical analysis as feasibility conditions and controls for geographic difference in communities' capacity to build.

3 Research Design and Data

The outcome that this study explores is the dynamics of monument building between 1865 and 1965, a period bookended by the conclusion of the Civil War on the one end and the dismantling of the racially discriminatory Jim Crow regime on the other. These hundred years span several politically distinctive eras, which we separate into three periods. The initial 1865-1899 period saw a short-lived occupation of the South by federal troops under the Reconstruction and efforts to impose racial equality (Foner, 2011). By the late 1870s, the Reconstruction had failed amid the departure of federal soldiers and rising political violence. From then on, Southern Whites worked to dismantle the vestiges of Black political power and reestablish White supremacy through manipulation of voting rules and outright violence. The next period, 1900-1916, witnessed the consolidation of the Jim Crow regime with formal disenfranchisement of Blacks, legal segregation, and establishment of one-party Democratic rule in the South (Kousser, 1974). The third and final period, 1917-1965, encompassed the height of Jim Crow and was epitomized by the legal suppression of Black rights across the entire South. This order persisted, despite emerging political fissures, until it collapsed under pressure from federal authorities and the civil rights movement in the 1960s. This periodization is stylized, but separating the more and less active periods of monument construction (1900-1916 vs. pre-1900 and post-1916) helps us identify the time-varying logics of memorialization. In addition to being the most active era of monument construction, the 1900-1916 period also coincides with a shift from building largely funereal obelisks in cemeteries to placing statues of unknown soldiers in courthouse squares and other prominent public places in town centers (Winberry, 1983).

For each variable in our main models, we use the closest preceding census year to the memorialization period under study to allow for the fact that memorialization might be shaped by contemporaneous factors. As a robustness check, we also run models only using prewar data, which are pre-treatment, i.e. not subject to changes that might have occurred in response to memorial construction. All models include state fixed effects to account for heterogeneity in state characteristics. We report spatial HAC standard errors, as the primary form of interdepen-

⁵The Durham County, NC, monument (1924) is an example. It was sponsored by a UDC chapter and a veterans' camp and financed partly by a county tax; county commissioners set the budget, and the statue was bought from the McNeel Marble Company.

⁶Winberry (1983) puts the standard courthouse monument as costing between \$1,500 and \$4,000 in 1905 (between \$55,000 and \$152,000 in 2026 dollars).

dence is geographic and is expected to decay with distance rather than be confined to discrete administrative clusters such as states. The results are robust to using standard errors clustered at state-level instead.

Throughout the paper, the unit of analysis is the county, with boundaries as they existed in 2020. Because county boundaries changed considerably over these hundred years, with many new counties created, we anchor the geography to a fixed point.⁷ The total number of 2020 counties under examination is 1,142 in the eleven former Confederate states. The results are also robust to using the 1860 county boundaries.

We now describe the variables used in the models. Descriptive statistics for all the variables, as well as information on the historical sources used to construct them, are in **Appendix A**.

3.1 Confederate Monuments

To study the dynamics of memorialization we use the dataset compiled by the Southern Poverty Law Center, SPLC (Southern Poverty Law Center, 2021).⁸ It contains information on the location of every Confederate memorial and, for most entries, also information on the construction year. SPLC adopts an expansive definition of memorials. The dataset includes information on monuments, public buildings (e.g. courthouses, schools, university halls), infrastructure (roads, bridges, and dams), places of natural beauty (e.g. parks), and symbols (e.g. county or state flags and seals, and license plates). In the main analyses, we focus specifically on Confederate monuments. This is because in the period under study monuments were by far the most common category of memorials – of all memorials with founding dates prior to 1965, 69% are monuments, and the non-monuments were mostly created in the late Jim Crow period.⁹ The effect of monuments is also more localized and easier to quantify than for some other categories like inter-county roads, license plates, or remote areas of natural beauty.

A total of 671 monuments have a construction date by 1965, and these are the monuments that enter the subsequent analyses. Of these, 532 (79%) are monuments to the fallen rather than statues of Confederate generals or politicians. In the main analyses, we use a binary measure of whether a county has at least one Confederate monument and explore alternative measures of memorialization in the robustness checks.

The timing and placement of Confederate monuments was highly uneven across the South. While construction began as soon as the war ended in 1865, only 13% of monuments were built before 1900. The pace of monument construction accelerated in the first decades of the 20th century, coinciding with the consolidation of the Jim Crow system and Democratic Party hegemony. More than half (55%) of all the monuments built over the 100-year period under

⁷To slot historical counties into modern ones we use areal weighted interpolation, whereby each target (contemporary, 2020) county is assigned a weighted average of values from overlapping source (historical) counties, with weights given by the proportion of each source county's area that intersects the target county, so that source units contributing larger shares of overlapping area exert greater influence on the imputed value.

⁸Downloaded on July 16, 2023.

⁹A breakdown of Confederate memorials by type and period of creation is reported in Appendix Table B1.

study for which we have construction dates were erected between 1900 and 1916. The number of counties with at least one monument also grew rapidly. This can be seen in **Figure 1**, where we show how the proportion of Southern counties with at least one Confederate monument changed over time. The pace of construction slowed by the time that the United States entered World War I in 1917 and then further during the Great Depression. Despite widespread monument construction across the South after the Civil War, 60% of counties in the eleven former Confederate states still had no Confederate monument by 1965.

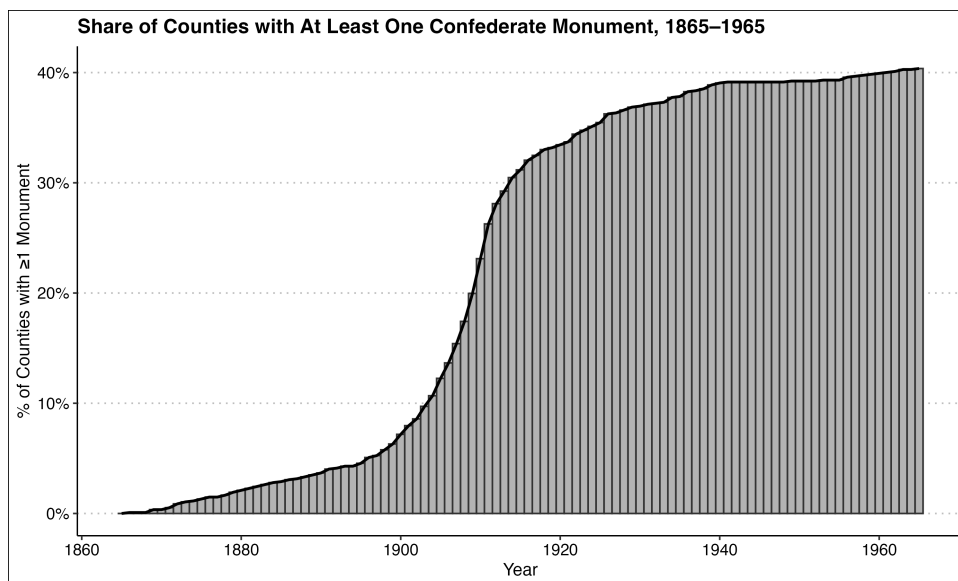


Figure 1: Yearly share of counties with at least one Confederate monument, 1865–1965. $N = 671$ monuments in 1,142 counties.

3.2 Variables Explaining Monument Construction

3.2.1 Group Contestation Variables

Our primary measure of Black presence is the share of each county's population that was Black in the census year immediately preceding the start of each period under analysis. For models of the entire period (1865–1965) and of the first period (1865–1899), we use the Black (enslaved and free) population share in 1860. For each subsequent period, we use the most recent census information (i.e., the 1900 Black share for 1900–1916 and the 1910 Black share for 1917–1965). It bears noting that Southern Black migration did not accelerate until the Great Migration began during World War I. Thus, county Black share in 1860 is highly correlated with Black share in 1900 at 0.92.

To capture the economic threat posed by Blacks, we use two measures of Black economic attainment. Following Rahnama (2025a), our primary measure is the Black literacy rate at the beginning of each period, on the assumption that literate Blacks were more of an economic threat to Whites. The correlation between Black population share and Black literacy in 1900

is negative at -0.33. As a secondary measure, we use the average Duncan Socioeconomic Index (SEI) score among Blacks; this index captures income and educational attainment across different occupations (Duncan, 1961).

Finally, we test whether the relationship between Black population share and monument construction depended on local political competition. We expect this association to be strongest in high-Black-share counties where Democrats and their opponents were closely matched, since political control in these counties remained uncertain. To test this expectation, we use the county-level returns from the 1892 and 1896 presidential elections, the decade preceding the most intensive period of monument construction (1900–1916). It is also the final period in which most Southern Blacks were still formally eligible to vote, before the adoption of poll taxes and literacy tests, among other devices, would largely eliminate Black suffrage (Kousser, 1974). In addition to being consistently measured across all counties, this variable is appropriate for other reasons. A county’s partisan balance, as captured by the presidential vote, was readily observable to contemporary political actors. Presidential returns were canvassed at the county level, reported in local newspapers, and closely monitored by party organizations. Furthermore, local shifts in presidential votes were closely linked to down-ballot and local-level races and even determinative of their outcomes (Engstrom and Kernell, 2014). Local political elites therefore would generally have known whether their county was safely controlled by one party or closely contested (Testa and Williams, 2026). We code a county as competitive (1) if the Democratic vote share in the 1892 and 1896 presidential elections averaged between 47.5% and 52.5%, and as non-competitive (0) otherwise. We then interact this indicator with county Black population share.

3.2.2 Post-Conflict Memorialization Explanations

To capture the post-conflict memorialization arguments of loss and honor, we use two measures. First, we test whether monument placement reflected the legacy of losses incurred during the war. We proxy this by a measure of the county-level estimates of Civil War-related deaths. The overall estimate of the Confederate dead as well as county-level estimates have been unavailable until recently because of the poor state of the Confederate war records. The recent release of individual-level census records for 1850-1880 as part of the Integrated Public Use Microdata Series (IPUMS) has now made it possible to estimate excess wartime mortality down to county level. To do that we compare mortality in a peacetime decade to an adjacent census decade when war takes place. It is then assumed that the difference in mortality between the two periods must be due to war. The wartime mortality estimates comprise of soldiers’ deaths in battle and from wounds, and death of civilians from starvation and violence. This method was pioneered by David Hacker (2011) and enhanced by Barceló et al. (2024) to arrive at county-level estimates that adjust for migration. We use the migration-adjusted census comparison method to estimate the number of native-born white males (NBWM) aged 5-44 in each Confederate

county who perished in the 1860-70 census period in excess of the regular peacetime mortality for this population.¹⁰ Excess mortality among this cohort of White males was 13% in the Confederacy; in the peak age group (ages 15-34 in 1860) excess mortality was a substantial 20-33% depending on the state. As relatively few civilians died in the Civil War (McPherson, 2003), this figure comprises primarily soldiers and sailors who died in the war or as veterans in the years before 1870.

Second, we examine whether monuments were placed at sites of “glory”, “honor”, and “sacrifice”. For this, we include a dummy if the county saw a class A (decisive) or B (major) battle in the Civil War, as adjudged by the Civil War Sites Advisory Commission of the National Parks Service (Civil War Sites Advisory Commission, 1993).¹¹ Around 7.5% of the counties in our sample contain such a site.

3.2.3 White Supply-Side Factors

We also account for potential supply-side explanations of monument placement. These include several measures of economic development, White population, and White organizational capacity, each of which may have affected the ability of local Whites to finance monument construction. The first set of measures comprises the share of the county’s population living in urban municipalities (i.e. municipalities of at least 2,500 people, as per IPUMS’ definition), county White population density (White population per square mile), and the share of adult White males in the county who were literate. These measures are taken either from the published census (Schroeder et al., 2025) or calculated from the full-count set of individual census records for the relevant year (Ruggles et al., 2024).

We measure organizational capacity with an indicator for whether a county had a chapter of the United Daughters of the Confederacy (UDC)—the principal builders of Confederate monuments—by 1900, before the onset of the most intense period of monument building, or by 1917, when exploring memorialization in 1917-1965. Lastly, inequality among Whites might have diminished the capacity to fund monuments by undermining White social cohesion. At the same time, Rahnama (2025a) finds that UDC chapters were most likely to emerge where inequality among Whites was high, as elites deployed “Lost Cause” ideology to rally poorer Whites and preserve ingroup cohesion. To capture inequality among Whites in the predomi-

¹⁰The method measures intercensal excess mortality due to the Civil War as the share of native-born white males (NBWM) lost between the 1860 and 1870 censuses, expressed as a percentage of the 1860 baseline population, relative to a peacetime counterfactual death rate (defined as the average of the 1850–1860 and 1870–1880 rates). Death rates are by ten-year age cohorts (ages 5–44 in 1860, corresponding to the fighting-age population during the war and allowing for errors in age reporting) and are aggregated using cohort weights derived from the full-count census samples. To account for migration, which also affects intercensal population changes, the method calculates excess migration rates using linked census samples and adjusts the estimates. We exclude 191 frontier counties in South Florida and West Texas from these calculations because census data there in 1860 are unreliable. Excess mortality and Black share in 1860 are correlated at 0.05, which means that these two variables do not capture the same underlying process.

¹¹In exploring where UDC chapters are formed, Rahnama (2025c) considers the location of battles that the Confederate forces lost as a factor. We expand that to all major battles fought in this project.

nantly agricultural South, we use the county-level Gini coefficient of White landownership.

4 Results

The most intuitive way to get an initial sense for whether the primary explanatory factors shed light on the observed pattern of memorialization is to turn to survival analyses. We use the Kaplan–Meier estimator to nonparametrically estimate the survival function for county-level monument construction—that is, the probability that *no* Confederate monument has been constructed in a county up to a given year. For the sake of space, we present in Figure 2 this pattern for a selection of variables from each of the three logics discussed above—racial threat theory, memorialization of loss, and White supply side. For visual clarity, we split all the counties into quartiles by the distribution of Black-population share in 1860 in panel A, Black adult male literacy rate in 1870 in panel B, wartime losses in panel C, and White population density in 1860 in panel D. In panel A, for instance, Q1 includes the counties with the lowest Black share (up to 15% of the county population), whereas Q4 those counties with the highest Black share (over 50% of the county’s population). In panel C, the first quartile (Q1) is one with the lowest wartime losses (up to 11% of NBWM); and quartile (Q4) represents counties with the highest wartime losses (over 30% of NBWM). The survival rate plots for the remaining explanatory variables are reported in Appendix Figure(s) B1.

The survival rate patterns in panel A of Figure 2 indicate that memorialization was fastest and started earliest in counties with the highest proportion of Blacks in 1860 (Q4). By 1965, 58% of counties with most the Blacks had at least one Confederate monument relative to 23% of counties with fewest Blacks. A log-rank test confirms this difference as statistically significant ($\chi^2 = 78, p < 0.001$). By comparison, economic competition posed by Blacks, as captured by Black literacy rates (panel B), explains little spatial-temporal variation in the patterns of monument building. Similarly, as evident in Panel C, there is little-to-no relationship between the extent of Confederate wartime losses and the pattern of memorialization at county level. If anything, memorials were less likely to be constructed in counties with highest wartime losses (Q4 in panel C). By 1965, 40% of counties with the highest wartime losses had a monument, compared to 48% of counties with the lowest losses. In contrast, White population density (panel D) does help explain monument construction. The most densely populated counties built significantly more monuments over this period. The difference between the Q1 and Q4 curves on this variable is statistically significant ($\chi^2 = 80, p < 0.001$).

In Table 1 we present our main models, testing the competing logics of the dynamics of Confederate memorialization. These are the results from linear probability models. The outcome is an indicator for whether at least one Confederate monument was constructed in a Southern county during the relevant period. Model 1 encompasses the entire 1865–1965 span of the data, whereas in models 2–4 we examine the time-varying dynamics of memorialization for each of the sub-periods separately. Model 5 adds political competition and its interaction

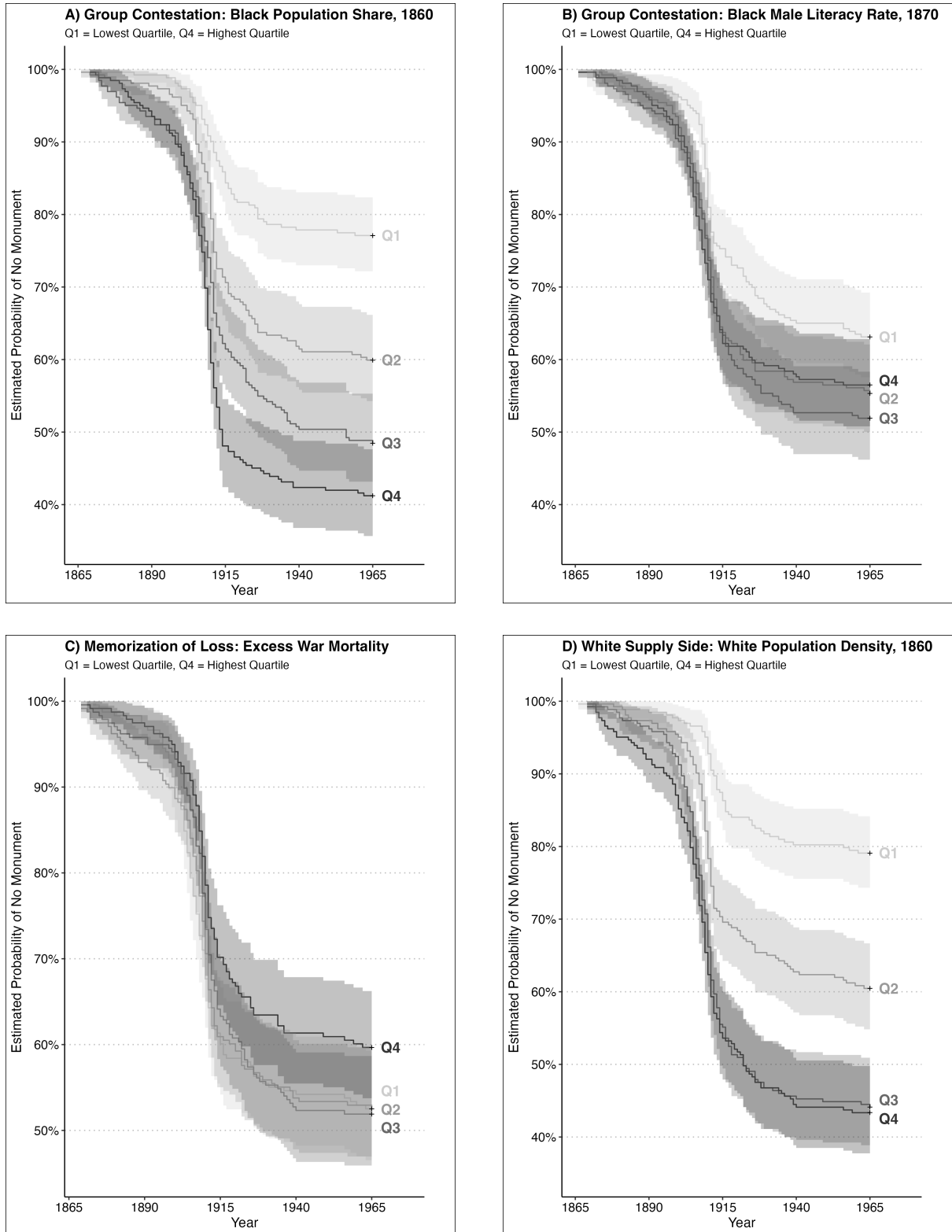


Figure 2: Kaplan-Meier estimates of survival probabilities of monument creation for split-sample estimates. By 1860 Black population share quartile (Panel A), 1870 Black male literacy rate quartile (Panel B), wartime excess mortality quartile (Panel C), and 1860 log White population density quartile (Panel D) in the 11 former Confederate states, based on 2020 county boundaries. Survival = No monument built. N = 1,142 counties (951 in Panel C).

with Black population share to the specification in model 3; this allows us to examine whether the association between Black population share and monument construction was stronger in the 1900-1916 period where political control remained contested. Each model includes group contestation, the memorialization-of-loss, and White supply-side variables, as well as state fixed effects; we report Conley spatial-HAC standard errors using a 100-km cutoff to account for spatial autocorrelation. The explanatory variables are always pre-treatment (e.g. 1860 for models 1 and 2, except for Black literacy that is first available only in 1870), and, as the dates of memorialization change, we include more contemporaneous measures of the independent variables (e.g. for 1900 when explaining memorialization in 1900-1916, and 1910 or 1917 when dealing with memorialization in 1917-1965).¹² The estimation sample is around 945 counties, as excess mortality estimates are missing for 191 contemporary counties in West Texas and South Florida that were part of the frontier in 1860.

The results for the group contestation hypothesis indicate that, in the hundred years after the Civil War, Confederate monuments were disproportionately built in counties with larger Black population shares. In the full-period model, a one standard-deviation increase in the proportion of Black residents in a county (a 21 percentage-point increase) is associated with an 11 percentage-point increase in the expected probability of a Confederate monument being built there (22% of a standard deviation), conditional on the other covariates and state fixed effects. This point estimate is smaller, although still statistically significant, during the early period, 1865–1899, and, among the period-specific models, it is largest in the 1900–1916 specification, the period of most intense monument construction. After 1916, the estimated association becomes smaller and statistically indistinguishable from zero, as, by then, the pace of memorialization declines substantially from its peak.

Black literacy, another one of the group contestation measures, and some of the White supply factors (White population density and urbanization) are also statistically associated with monument-building patterns in some or all of the models. A one-standard-deviation increase in Black literacy in 1900 (an increase by 11 percentage-points) is associated with a 2.3 percentage-point increase in the expected probability of subsequent monument construction ($p = 0.1$).

Turning to White supply side variables, the full-period estimate implies that a doubling of White population density is associated with a 13.9 percentage-point increase in the expected probability of monument construction. The period specific effects of this variable are around 5–6 percentage points. Higher urbanization levels also tend to be associated with a higher likelihood of monument building, although not in every specification. In model 3, a one standard-deviation increase in the urbanization rate (an increase of 17 percentage-points) is associated with a 3.6 percentage-point increase in the expected probability of monument construction. Organizational capacity also appears to have mattered during the principal construction wave: counties with a UDC chapter by 1900 had an expected probability of monument construction in 1900-1916 approximately 11 percentage-points higher than otherwise similar counties without

¹²The excess mortality estimates are always for the 1860-1870 decade.

Table 1: The Logic of Confederate Monument Construction, 1865-1965

	1865–1965	1865–1899	1900–1916	1917–1965	1900–1916
	(1)	(2)	(3)	(4)	(5)
<i>Group Contestation</i>					
Black Population (%)	0.51*** (0.12)	0.19** (0.06)	0.50*** (0.12)	0.13 (0.09)	0.46*** (0.12)
Black Literacy (%)	0.06 (0.12)	0.02 (0.05)	0.21 [†] (0.12)	−0.06 (0.11)	0.22 [†] (0.12)
Political Competition (0/1)			−0.02 (0.06)		−0.16 [†] (0.08)
(Black Pop) × (Political Competition)					0.43 [†] (0.23)
<i>Memorialization of Loss</i>					
Excess War Mortality (%)	0.08 (0.07)	0.04 (0.04)	0.02 (0.08)	0.02 (0.04)	0.01 (0.08)
Major Battle Site (0/1)	0.05 (0.08)	0.03 (0.05)	0.10 [†] (0.05)	0.03 (0.05)	0.09 [†] (0.05)
<i>White Supply Side</i>					
White Population Density (Log)	0.20*** (0.04)	0.07*** (0.02)	0.07** (0.03)	0.08*** (0.02)	0.08** (0.03)
Adult White Male Literacy (%)	0.49* (0.23)	0.02 (0.10)	0.21 (0.31)	0.22 (0.24)	0.23 (0.30)
UDC Chapter (0/1)			0.11** (0.04)	0.03 (0.02)	0.11** (0.04)
White Land Gini (0-1)	0.10 (0.21)	0.07 (0.08)	−0.52 [†] (0.27)	0.13 (0.20)	−0.51 [†] (0.27)
Urbanization (%)	0.00 (0.17)	0.52*** (0.13)	0.21 [†] (0.12)	0.18* (0.08)	0.20 (0.12)
State FE	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes
Num. obs.	944	944	946	944	946
R ²	0.17	0.17	0.17	0.10	0.17
Adj. R ²	0.16	0.15	0.15	0.08	0.15

Note: Conley standard errors with a 100 km spatial cutoff are reported in parentheses. *** $p < 0.001$; ** $p < 0.01$; * $p < 0.05$; [†] $p < 0.1$.

a chapter.

The one variable that is clearly not associated with the pattern of Confederate monument building is excess wartime mortality. It is consistently small in magnitude and not statistically significant. The reader might be concerned that monuments might be built to satisfy demand from the surviving war veterans rather than to commemorate the war dead. We address that possibility by examining the relationship between the share of pensioners in a county and the dynamics of monument construction in Appendix Table B13 (model 5a).¹³ The pensioners' share variable is not statistically significant. The alternative measure of the wartime memorialization hypothesis – the presence of a major Civil War battle site within a county – performs a little better, but the effect of this variable is small, and it is only marginally statistically significant ($p = 0.1$) in the 1900-1916 specification. And, anyway, the geographic reach of this relationship is necessarily limited, as only 7.5% of counties in the estimation sample contain a major battle site. While battle sites may have encouraged memorialization in a few counties, they cannot account for the broader geography of monument construction.¹⁴

This initial look at the results suggests that Confederate monuments were primarily built in response to the presence of Black political and economic threat and, to a smaller degree, as a product of White wealth and organizational capacity. However, not every high Black-share county had a Confederate monument in 1965; in fact, 40% of such counties had none. Thus, the group contestation hypothesis merits further examination. In model 5, we ask whether the relationship between Black presence and Confederate monument building depended on local political competition by adding an interaction term between Black population share and a county's political competitiveness level (a binary variable that takes on the value of 1 if Democratic presidential candidates secured 47.5-52.5% of the vote there in the 1890s) to the model. The results suggest that political competition did condition the association between Black population share and monument construction. In counties with noncompetitive elections, a one-standard-deviation increase in Black population share in 1900 (an increase of 23 percentage-points) is associated with a 10.6 percentage-point increase in the expected probability of monument construction. In competitive counties, the corresponding increase is nearly twice as large at 20.6 percentage-points.

The binary specification in model 5 is informative, but requires us to impose a particular threshold in order to delineate competitive from noncompetitive counties. More flexibly, it is possible to vary the marginal effect of Black population share in 1900 across average Democratic presidential vote share in the 1892 and 1896 elections. This is what we do in Figure 3,

¹³We located data on the number of pensioners around 1900 for seven states: AL, AR, FL, MS, NC, SC, and VA. While this variable is imperfect, as the allocation of wartime pensions was subject to political manipulation, it is nevertheless indicative.

¹⁴Large Confederate cemeteries are another potential marker of wartime loss, similar to major battle sites. In Appendix Table B2 we add the location of major Confederate military cemeteries (those containing at least 200 bodies) to the Civil War battle sites. Forty-nine counties (4% of the total count) have such cemeteries. This combined measure for sites of wartime significance performs similarly to the major battle sites variables on its own.

where we interact Black population share with a cubic B-spline in average Democratic vote share using five degrees of freedom.¹⁵ This specification includes the same controls as model 3, state fixed effects, and Conley spatial-HAC standard errors using a 100-km cutoff. Above the x-axis, we report how many counties there are for each level of Democratic vote share.

The flexible estimate broadly reinforces the binary interaction result. Black population share remains positively and statistically significantly associated with monument construction throughout most of the displayed range of Democratic vote share, but the magnitude of this association varies considerably. The estimated marginal effect rises from approximately 0.34 near the lower boundary of the range to a peak of approximately 0.69 at a Democratic vote share of about 56–57%, close to the electorally competitive portion of the distribution. Given that one standard deviation in Black population share is approximately 23 percentage-points, the peak estimate corresponds to an approximately 16-percentage-point difference in the expected probability of monument construction, compared with about 8 percentage points near the lower boundary of the distribution. Beyond the peak, the marginal association declines as Democratic dominance increases, reaching approximately 0.36 around an 80% Democratic vote share, again equivalent to a difference of 8 percentage points in the expected probability of memorialization. Near the upper boundary of the Democratic vote share, the curve turns upward, but this boundary pattern is estimated less precisely, because there are fewer counties at the top of the distribution.

The central substantive result is that Black population share is positively associated with monument construction across different political settings, but the association is strongest near the electorally competitive portion of the distribution. This pattern is consistent with the argument that the incentive to make a lasting symbolic claim on public space was particularly strong where control of the local racial and political order remained unsettled.

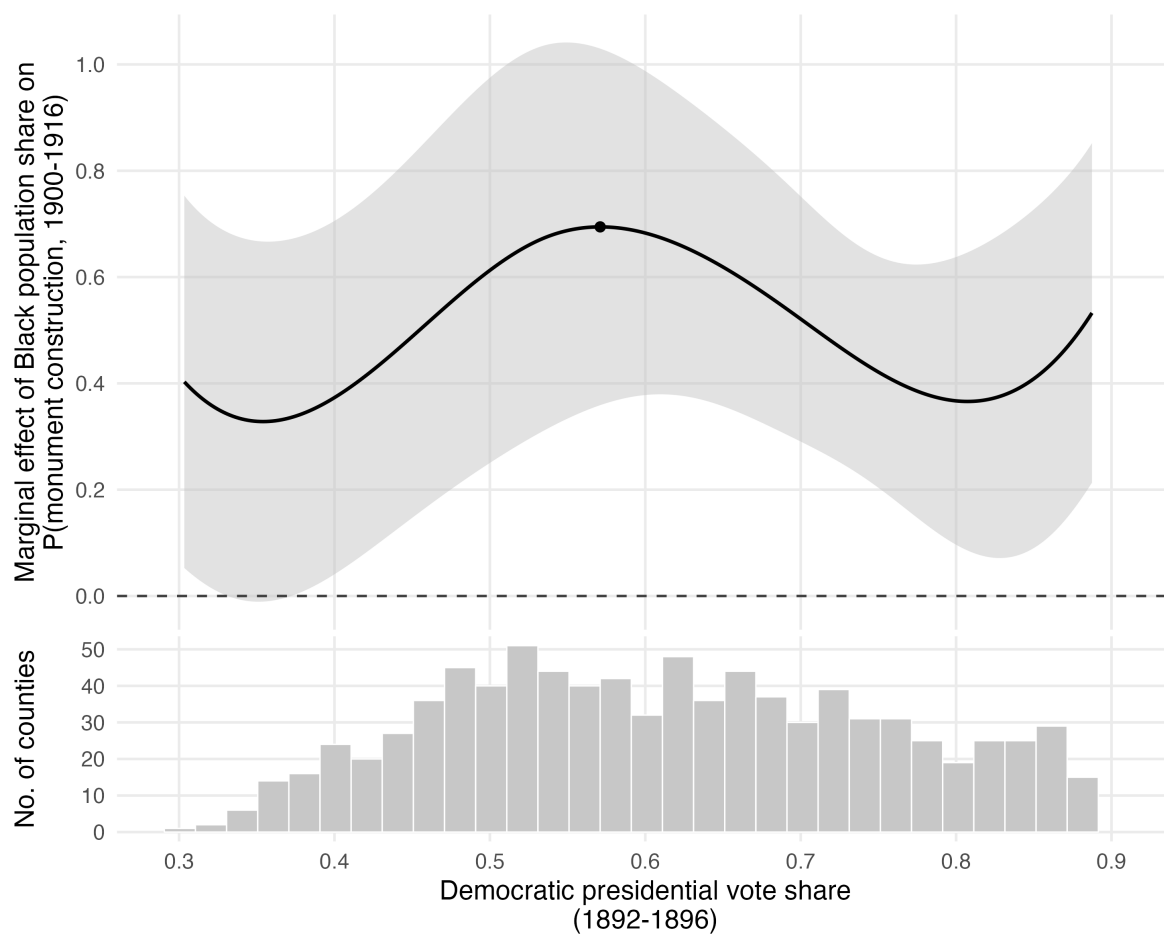
4.1 Robustness

To ensure the validity of these findings we implement extensive robustness checks. First, we confirm that the results hold when periodization is defined differently; in Appendix Tables B3 and B4 we examine the dynamics of monument-building in every ten-year and, separately, twenty-year period from 1865 to 1965. As earlier, Black population share is most closely associated with memorialization, especially before 1920; the same White organizational factors also remain significant.¹⁶ The pattern of results also holds in a rural sample that excludes all counties with a town of 2,500 or more inhabitants in 1860 (Appendix Table B5). Likewise, the

¹⁵In Appendix Figure B2, we reproduce the estimates using both B-splines and natural splines with four, five, and six degrees of freedom. The substantive pattern is similar across these alternative specifications.

¹⁶In Appendix Tables B4 and subsequently B5 and B11, the interaction between Black share and political competition remains substantively large but falls below the conventional level of statistical significance. We are not particularly concerned about this, as the interaction performs as expected across most robustness checks and the definition of political competitiveness threshold is somewhat subjective. Most importantly, Figure 3 shows how the marginal effect of Black population share performs across the entire range of political competitiveness.

Figure 3: Political competition and the marginal effect of Black population share on Confederate monument construction, 1900–1916



Note: The solid line reports the estimated marginal effect, the shaded area its 95% confidence interval, and the lower panel the distribution of counties across Democratic vote share. The displayed range is restricted to the 2.5th through 95th percentiles of Democratic vote share, although the full complete-case sample is used in estimation. This specification includes the controls reported in Table 1 and state fixed effects. Confidence intervals use Conley spatial-HAC standard errors with a 100-km cutoff.

results hold when we use the 1860 values (i.e., pre-treatment) for all the explanatory variables, including in models that examine memorialization in the 1900s – see Appendix Table B6. Next, in Appendix Table B7, we replace the binary measure of memorialization with a log-transformed count of monuments. The effects are similar because most counties have only one monument. We, alternatively, replace the binary measure of monument presence with a variable that captures a more expansive measure of Confederate memorialization – a binary of whether a county had a monument, school, or any other public building named after Confederate leaders. The results remain very similar; see Appendix Table B8. We then replace Black (enslaved + Free Black) share in 1860 with a county measure of slaveowner presence (slaveowners / White population). Unsurprisingly, given high correlation between the presence of the enslaved and slave owners, the results hold, as shown in Appendix Table B9. To make sure that the results are not an artifact of the way that historical county borders are aggregated to the 2020 counties, we rerun the analyses within the 1860 county borders. The results remain unchanged; see Appendix Table B10. Lastly, we demonstrate that the results are consistent if standard errors are clustered at state level (see Appendix Table B11) instead of using Conley spatial-HAC standard errors with a 100-km cutoff and when the cut off for the spatial standard errors is changed to a 200-km cutoff instead (see Appendix Table B12).¹⁷

In the robustness analyses, we also test several factors that previous scholarship has linked to Confederate memorialization and related postbellum phenomena that are either post-treatment, like the presence of federal troops during Reconstruction or subsequent lynchings, or are alternative measures for the group contestation explanation, like inter-racial economic competition. Henderson et al. (2021) report that the number of lynching victims in a county predicts the number of Confederate memorials there, interpreting both as expressions of racial terror. Ankori-Karlinsky (2026) likewise argues that monuments and lynchings served a common function in constructing the postbellum racial order. In model 5b of Appendix Table B13 we test whether the occurrence of a lynching in a county before 1900 predicts monument construction there during the intensive 1900–1916 period, using data from Tolnay and Beck (1995) and Weaver (2019). The lynching variable is weakly statistically significant but small in magnitude. Relatedly, the economic competition mechanism emphasized in the lynching literature (Tolnay and Beck, 1995; Rahnama, 2025a) — rivalry between lower-income Whites and Blacks in the agricultural labor market — enters our 1900–1916 analyses as the share of White tenant farmers and hired farm laborers exposed to competition from their Black counterparts (model 5g). We also add Black occupation score, as a complement to Black literacy rate, and White occupation score GINI as a complement to White Land GINI (models 5d and 5e).¹⁸ Of these

¹⁷Clustering standard errors at state level is not appropriate for this data structure, given that there are too few (11) state clusters (Cameron and Miller, 2015).

¹⁸While we do test the robustness of including White occupational Gini, we do not favor its use in the largely agrarian South. Specifically, the underlying occupational classification assigns landowning farmers, many of whom formed the backbone of the Southern elite, and tenant farmers to the *same* occupational category. It therefore massively understates White inequality in high White-share rural counties.

variables, the only one that is weakly statistically significant but small in magnitude is Black occupation score. Lastly, Byun and Kwon (2025) find that lynchings were more likely to occur where Black federal troops were stationed during Reconstruction, whereas Frieden et al. (2025) suggest that Black socioeconomic attainment was higher in counties with federal troops. We, therefore, add the presence of Black federal troops and of any federal troops in 1867–1877, respectively, to our standard model of monument building in 1900–1916 (models 5f and 5g in Appendix Table B13) and find that both variables have a positive and statistically significant association with memorialization. Across all of these models the original group contestation variables remain statistically significant and large in magnitude.

5 Conclusion

As with broader comparative literature on post-conflict memorialization, the literature on Confederate memorials has been largely focused on their consequences for attitudes and behaviors. Considerably less work, however, has been done on the strategic factors that influence when and where these memorials were built. Departing from an observation that memorial builders have different political logics available to them when deciding where to build monuments, in this paper, we examine the local factors that explain where Confederate monuments were constructed. Monument builders had the option of constructing memorials in any communities with a large Black population, or only those where Blacks competed for jobs with poor Whites, or counties where Blacks continued to vote into the early Jim Crow period, or those communities that experienced higher wartime losses, or simply areas where White economic and organizational capacity was high enough to enable monument building.

We find that monuments were more likely to be built in counties with a high share of Blacks, a pattern that was strongest during the main wave of memorialization from about 1900 to 1916, when Jim Crow institutions consolidated. There is also compelling evidence that monument builders were especially likely to construct memorials in Black counties that remained politically competitive – i.e. where Democrats were getting around 50% of the vote in the 1890s – and where Black residents continued to exercise their political rights. In other words, evidence suggests that memorial builders were particularly likely to build monuments in areas where the White supremacist movement was on the cusp of consolidating power. White wealth and organizational capacity also influenced the dynamics of memorialization – notably, urban counties, and those with UDC chapters prior to 1900, were more likely to see a Confederate monument built – but these factors have a much smaller impact on monument building than the group contestation variables. With the benefit of hindsight, a modern reader might be puzzled why White elites would fear Black political power in the early 1900s, given the successful consolidation of the Jim Crow regime. But let us recall that the memory of the Civil War and Reconstruction rightly led southern Whites to question the permanence of their political and economic dominance. Furthermore, uncertainty remained: a different Supreme Court could rule against

“separate but equal”, and Congress could try again with another Force Bill.

Bringing these findings back to the broader debates in political science, we highlight two implications. First, long-term exposure to memorials is endogenous to the distribution of political power at the construction stage, as authorities and allied civic organizations singled out places where reasserting racial hierarchy was particularly consequential. Therefore, research on the effects of monuments or their removal might need to treat monument exposure as a strategic allocation problem rather than a neutral background condition. In other words, locations that today are confronting the legacy effects of memorialization received this treatment based on a political logic at some point in the past, and it is important to understand that logic when studying the legacies of memorialization. Second, the findings inform debates about how societies negotiate the violent past, since, if monument siting reflects power distribution rather than wartime losses, policies that emphasize heritage or neutral commemoration risk misdiagnosing the function that monuments serve in local political orders.

Much work is yet to be done on the mechanisms by which memorials come to exercise their political effects. In the context of the postbellum South, do monuments instill greater fear among Blacks and perhaps force them to relocate to other counties (Ferlenga, 2023), or do they consolidate the local White community by shaping the setting up of the local branches of institutions associated with the ‘Lost Cause’ narrative? Another important issue that merits study is the determinants of why and how some Black counties were able to remain politically competitive through the 1890s, thus attracting the attention of Confederate monument-builders.

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Appendices

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A Appendix: Variables Description and Summary Statistics

- **Monuments** (Binary; 1865–1965 with intermittent cutoffs): Indicates the presence of at least one Confederate monument in a county during the specified period. Coded 1 if any monument is present; 0 otherwise. Source: “Whose Heritage?” project, Southern Poverty Law Center.
- **Black Share** (Percentage; 1860, 1900, 1910): Black residents as a percentage of the total county population in 1860 (enslaved plus free Blacks), 1900 and 1910. Source: IPUMS NHGIS.
- **Adult Black Male Literacy** (Percentage; 1870, 1900, and 1910): Literate adult Black males as a percentage of all adult Black males in a county. Source: IPUMS USA and IPUMS NHGIS.
- **Political Competition, 1890s (%)**: Average vote share for the Democratic Party candidate for U.S. President; 1892 and 1896. Source: Clubb, et al. 2006.
- **Civil War Mortality** (Percentage; 1860–1870): Estimated excess mortality among native-born white males attributable to the Civil War. Source: IPUMS USA and IPUMS NHGIS.
- **Civil War Battle Site** (Binary): Indicates if a county had a class A (decisive) or B (major) battle in the Civil War. Source: Civil War Sites Advisory Commission of the National Parks Service.
- **Confederate Cemetery** (Binary): Indicates if a county had formal cemetery with at least 200 Confederate soldiers buried in it. Source: Author construction from various sources (National Cemetery Administration, Sons of Confederate Veterans Confederate Graves Registry, state historical society sites, etc.).
- **Urbanization** (Percentage; 1860, 1900, and 1910): Urban residents as a percentage of the total county population in each year. Source: IPUMS NHGIS.
- **White Population Density** (Log; 1860, 1900, and 1910): Natural logarithm of the number of white residents per square mile in each county (with one added to avoid log-zero). Source: IPUMS NHGIS.
- **Land Gini** (Index; 1860, 1900, and 1910): Gini coefficient of landownership inequality, based on farm sizes, by county. Source: IPUMS NHGIS.
- **Adult White Male Literacy** (Percentage; 1860, 1900, and 1910): Literate adult white males as a percentage of all adult white males in a county. Source: IPUMS USA and IPUMS NHGIS.

- **UDC Chapters** (Binary; 1900 and 1903): Indicates the presence of at least one United Daughters of the Confederacy (UDC) chapter in a county in each year. Coded 1 if present; 0 otherwise. Source: Minutes of the Annual Meeting of the United Daughters of the Confederacy (1900, 1903, 1907, 1910, 1917).
- **Lynchings** (pre-1900): Indicates the presence of at least one lynching in a county before 1900. Coded 1 if a lynching occurred; 0 otherwise. Source: Weaver 2019.
- **Federal Troops**: Indicates the presence of federal troops during Reconstruction (1865-1880). Coded 1 if present; 0 otherwise. Source: Downs 2015.
- **Black Federal Troops**: Indicates the presence of Black federal troops during Reconstruction (1865-1880). Coded 1 if present; 0 otherwise. Source: Downs 2015.
- **Black Socioeconomic Attainment** (Index; 1900): Duncan Socioeconomic Index score capturing the weighted sum of occupational education and occupational income for Blacks, by county (level). Source: IPUMS USA.
- **Gini Coefficient of White Socioeconomic Attainment** (%; 1900): The Gini coefficient of Duncan Socioeconomic Index scores of occupations for Whites, by county. Source: IPUMS USA.
- **White Tenant Farmers Labor Competition** (1900): White tenant farmers and sharecroppers as a share of total county tenant farmers and sharecroppers (*Whtenantshare*). Calculated as: $1 - |Whtenantshare - 0.5|$, where an equal number of White and Black tenant farmers and sharecroppers equals 0.5, the highest value. Source: IPUMS NHGIS.
- **Confederate Veterans Density** (%; 1900): Share of White population who is receiving any Confederate Army pension. Located for seven states (AL, AR, FL, MS, NC, SC, and VA). Source: Annual or Biennial Report of the State Auditor, circa 1900 (AL, AR, MS, NC, VA); Annual Report of the State Comptroller, circa 1900 (FL, SC).

Table A1: Summary statistics for main variables.

Statistic	N	Mean	St. Dev.	Min	Max
Monuments 1865–1965 (Binary)	1,142	0.404	0.491	0	1
Monuments 1865–1899 (Binary)	1,142	0.063	0.243	0	1
Monuments 1900–1916 (Binary)	1,142	0.276	0.447	0	1
Monuments 1917–1965 (Binary)	1,142	0.130	0.336	0	1
Black Share 1860 (%)	1,048	0.376	0.212	0.007	0.924
Black Share 1900 (%)	1,138	0.320	0.246	0.000	0.940
Black Share 1910 (%)	1,138	0.310	0.243	0.000	0.942
Adult Black Male Literacy 1870	1,046	0.121	0.131	0	0.960
Adult Black Male Literacy 1900	1,135	0.517	0.112	0	0.861
Adult Black Male Literacy 1910	1,138	0.665	0.105	0	1.000
Democratic Vote Share 1892–1896 (%)	1,114	0.627	0.158	0.112	0.998
Civil War Mortality (%)	951	0.223	0.211	−0.974	1.000
Civil War Battles (Binary)	1,142	0.062	0.242	0	1
Confederate Cemetery (Binary)	1,142	0.041	0.199	0	1
Urbanization 1860 (%)	1,048	0.033	0.134	0.000	1.000
Urbanization 1900 (%)	1,138	0.072	0.168	0.000	1.000
Urbanization 1910 (%)	1,137	0.103	0.192	0.000	1.000
White Pop. Density 1860 (Log)	1,052	2.099	0.876	0.000	6.435
White Pop. Density 1900 (Log)	1,142	2.690	1.021	0.000	6.971
White Pop. Density 1910 (Log)	1,142	2.894	0.960	0.000	7.191
Land GINI 1860	1,033	0.727	0.106	0.010	0.999
Land GINI 1900	1,138	0.491	0.116	0.000	0.839
Land GINI 1910	1,138	0.501	0.091	0.019	0.817
Adult White Male Literacy 1860	1,046	0.854	0.123	0.013	1.000
Adult White Male Literacy 1900	1,135	0.863	0.086	0.465	1.000
Adult White Male Literacy 1910	1,138	0.898	0.073	0.541	1.000
Black Federal Troops 1865–1880 (Binary)	1,142	0.147	0.354	0	1
Federal Troops 1865–1880 (Binary)	1,142	0.462	0.499	0	1
Black Occupational Score 1900 (Index)	1,139	14.984	4.470	0.000	54.014
Lynchings Pre-1900 (Binary)	1,142	0.550	0.498	0	1
Pension Share 1900	517	0.009	0.006	0	0.035
White Tenants / Laborer Comp. 1900	946	0.240	0.148	0	0.500
White Occupation Score Gini 1900	946	0.290	0.026	0.184	0.350

B Appendix: Robustness Tests and Additional Information

Table B1: Total number of three key types of memorials (monuments, buildings and public infrastructure, and schools) by period. Counting memorials with a recorded creation date only.

Period	# Monuments	# Public Buildings	# Schools
1865–1965	671	56	115
1865–1899	87	2	4
1900–1916	370	9	20
1917–1965	214	45	91

Note: 87.5% of monuments with a recorded construction date were built between 1865 and 1965 (671 of 767); 87.5% of buildings and public infrastructure with a recorded construction date were built between 1865 and 1965 (56 of 64); and 83.9% of schools with a recorded construction date were built between 1865 and 1965 (115 of 137).

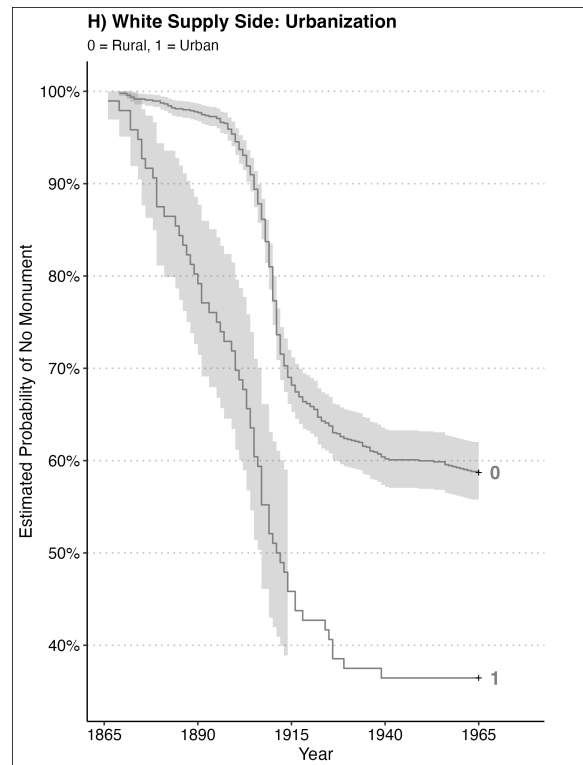
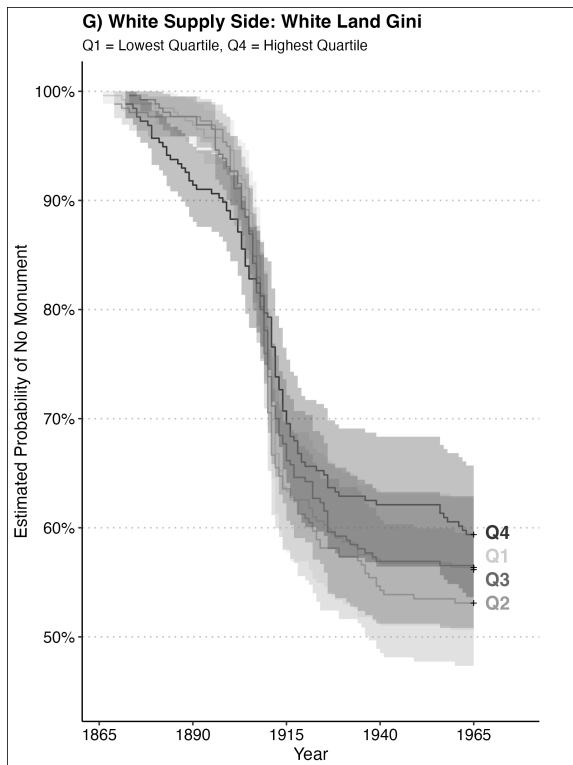
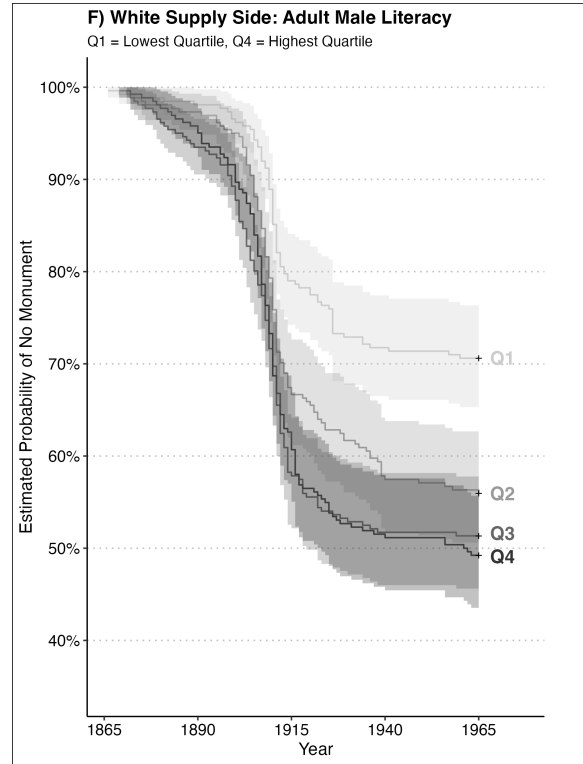
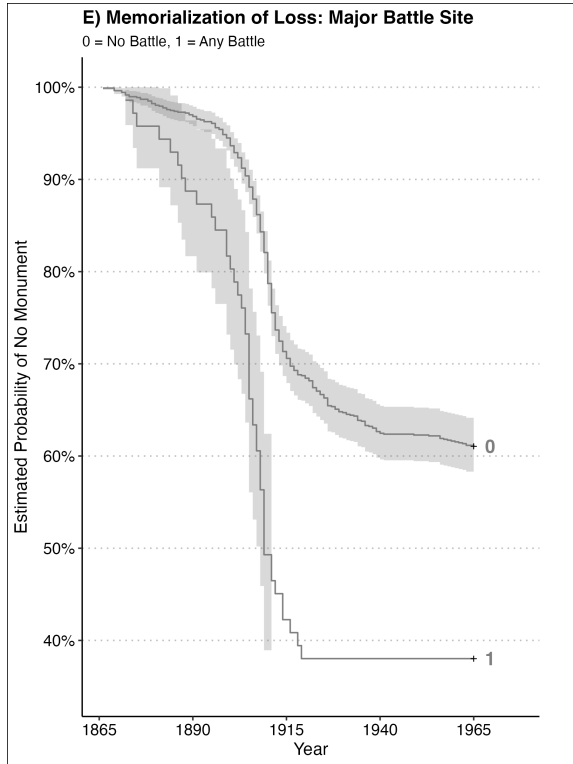


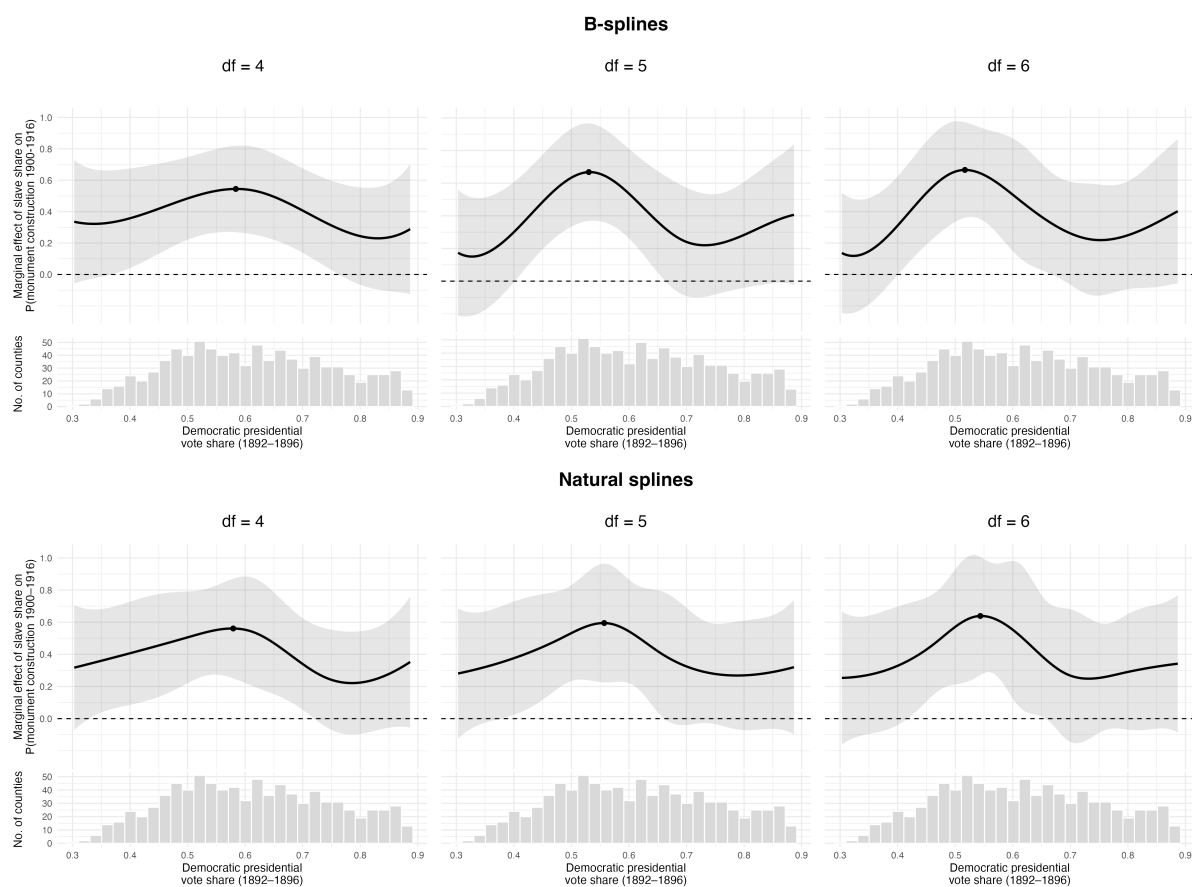
Figure B1: (Continuing from Figure 2:) Kaplan-Meier estimates of survival probabilities of monument creation for split-sample estimates by Major Battle Site (Panel E, top left), Adult White Male Literacy Rate in 1860 (Panel F, top right), Gini Coefficient of White Land Inequality in 1860 (Panel G, bottom left), and 1860 Urbanization rate (Panel H, bottom right) in the 11 former Confederate states, based on 2020 county boundaries. Survival = No monument built. N = 1,142 counties.

Table B2: Replicating main models from Table 1 with a variable that includes Confederate cemeteries in addition to Battle Sites.

	1865–1965	1865–1899	1900–1916	1917–1965	1900–1916
	(1)	(2)	(3)	(4)	(5)
<i>Group Contestation</i>					
Black Population (%)	0.51*** (0.12)	0.18** (0.06)	0.50*** (0.12)	0.13 (0.09)	0.46*** (0.12)
Black Literacy (%)	0.06 (0.12)	0.03 (0.05)	0.20 [†] (0.12)	−0.07 (0.11)	0.21 [†] (0.12)
Political Competition (0/1)			−0.02 (0.06)		−0.15 [†] (0.08)
(Black Pop) × (Political Competition)					0.41 [†] (0.23)
<i>Memorialization of Loss</i>					
Excess War Mortality (%)	0.08 (0.07)	0.05 (0.04)	0.02 (0.08)	0.02 (0.04)	0.01 (0.08)
Confederate Sites of Wartime Significance (0/1)	0.06 (0.07)	0.02 (0.04)	0.10 [†] (0.05)	0.07 (0.05)	0.09 [†] (0.05)
<i>White Supply Side</i>					
White Population Density (Log)	0.19*** (0.04)	0.08*** (0.02)	0.07* (0.03)	0.07** (0.02)	0.07** (0.03)
Adult White Male Literacy (%)	0.48* (0.23)	0.02 (0.10)	0.19 (0.31)	0.19 (0.23)	0.22 (0.30)
UDC Chapter (0/1)			0.10** (0.04)	0.02 (0.02)	0.11** (0.04)
White Land Gini (0-1)	0.07 (0.21)	0.06 (0.08)	−0.52 [†] (0.27)	0.11 (0.20)	−0.51 [†] (0.27)
Urbanization (%)	0.03 (0.19)	0.54*** (0.16)	0.21 [†] (0.12)	0.18* (0.08)	0.20 (0.12)
State FE	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes
Num. obs.	944	944	946	944	946
R ²	0.17	0.17	0.17	0.10	0.17
Adj. R ²	0.16	0.15	0.15	0.08	0.15

Note: Conley standard errors with a 100 km spatial cutoff are reported in parentheses. *** $p < 0.001$; ** $p < 0.01$; * $p < 0.05$; [†] $p < 0.1$

Figure B2: Robustness of the estimated moderation pattern across alternative spline specifications



Note: The figure reproduces the estimated marginal effect of county slave share on the probability of Confederate monument construction across levels of Democratic presidential vote share using alternative spline specifications. Columns vary the degrees of freedom (4, 5, and 6), while rows compare B-splines and natural splines. Across specifications, the same substantive pattern emerges: the effect of slave share peaks in electorally competitive counties and weakens at lower and higher levels of Democratic vote share.

Table B3: Replicating Main Results from Table 1 for different time periods for monument building.

	1865–1879	1880–1889	1890–1899	1900–1909	1900–1909	1910–1919	1920–1929	1930–1939	1940–1949	1950–1965
	(1)	(2)	(3)	(4)	(5)	(6)	(7)	(8)	(9)	(10)
<i>Memorialization of Loss</i>										
Excess War Mortality (%)	0.02 (0.02)	0.02 (0.01)	-0.01 (0.03)	-0.07 (0.06)	-0.07 (0.06)	0.09 (0.06)	-0.02 (0.04)	0.04 (0.03)	-0.01 (0.01)	-0.02 (0.03)
Major Battle Site (0/1)	-0.03 (0.03)	0.03 (0.02)	0.02 (0.04)	0.11* (0.05)	0.10* (0.05)	0.05 (0.05)	-0.02 (0.03)	0.06 (0.03)	-0.01 (0.01)	0.02 (0.03)
<i>Group Contestation</i>										
Black Population (%)	0.05 (0.04)	0.07 [†] (0.04)	0.06 [†] (0.03)	0.32*** (0.09)	0.28** (0.09)	0.21** (0.07)	0.05 (0.06)	0.08 [†] (0.04)	0.03 (0.03)	0.06* (0.03)
Black Literacy (%)	-0.03 (0.03)	-0.00 (0.03)	0.01 (0.07)	0.07 (0.08)	0.08 (0.08)	0.22* (0.10)	-0.01 (0.07)	0.06 (0.06)	-0.04 (0.05)	0.06 (0.05)
Political Competition (0/1)				-0.02 (0.04)	-0.17* (0.07)					
(Black Pop) × (Political Comp)				0.48 [†] (0.25)						
<i>White Supply Side</i>										
White Population Density (Log)	0.01 (0.01)	0.03* (0.01)	0.03** (0.01)	0.06** (0.02)	0.06** (0.02)	0.04 (0.02)	0.05* (0.02)	0.02 (0.02)	0.02 (0.02)	0.05*** (0.01)
Adult White Male Literacy (%)	0.01 (0.06)	-0.08 (0.06)	0.14 [†] (0.08)	0.21 (0.21)	0.23 (0.21)	0.03 (0.18)	-0.11 (0.16)	-0.05 (0.16)	0.19** (0.07)	0.01 (0.10)
UDC Chapter (0/1)				0.14*** (0.03)	0.14*** (0.03)	0.06* (0.03)	0.02 [†] (0.01)			
White Land Gini (0-1)	0.05 (0.06)	0.00 (0.04)	-0.03 (0.05)	-0.51* (0.23)	-0.50* (0.24)	-0.10 (0.21)	0.10 (0.16)	0.12 (0.14)	0.06 (0.10)	0.38** (0.12)
Urbanization (%)	0.37** (0.13)			0.01 (0.12)	-0.00 (0.12)	0.15 (0.09)	0.11 (0.08)	0.14* (0.06)	-0.01 (0.05)	0.01 (0.04)
State FE	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes
Num. obs.	944	944	944	946	946	944	942	942	942	942
R ²	0.11	0.10	0.06	0.14	0.14	0.08	0.08	0.06	0.03	0.09
Adj. R ²	0.10	0.08	0.04	0.12	0.13	0.06	0.06	0.04	0.01	0.07

Note: *** $p < 0.001$; ** $p < 0.01$; * $p < 0.05$; [†] $p < 0.1$

Table B4: Replicating Main Results from Table 1 for different time periods for monument building.

	1865–1879	1880–1899	1900–1919	1900–1919	1920–1939	1940–1965
	(1)	(2)	(3)	(4)	(5)	(6)
<i>Memorialization of Loss</i>						
Excess War Mortality (%)	0.02 (0.02)	0.02 (0.03)	0.05 (0.08)	0.04 (0.08)	0.02 (0.04)	−0.03 (0.03)
Major Battle Site (0/1)	−0.03 (0.03)	0.04 (0.05)	0.11* (0.05)	0.11* (0.05)	0.02 (0.04)	0.00 (0.03)
<i>Group Contestation</i>						
Black Population (%)	0.05 (0.04)	0.14* (0.06)	0.46*** (0.12)	0.42*** (0.12)	0.10 (0.07)	0.09*** (0.02)
Black Literacy (%)	−0.03 (0.03)	0.02 (0.07)	0.17 (0.11)	0.18 (0.11)	0.06 (0.10)	0.01 (0.05)
Political Competition (0/1)			−0.01 (0.06)	−0.13 (0.09)		
(Black Pop) × (Political Competition)				0.38 (0.24)		
<i>White Supply Side</i>						
White Population Density (Log)	0.01 (0.01)	0.06*** (0.02)	0.08** (0.03)	0.08** (0.03)	0.05† (0.03)	0.06*** (0.01)
Adult White Male Literacy (%)	0.01 (0.06)	0.03 (0.10)	0.33 (0.30)	0.35 (0.29)	−0.12 (0.18)	0.18 (0.13)
UDC Chapter (0/1)			0.11** (0.04)	0.11** (0.04)	0.02 (0.02)	
White Land Gini (0-1)	0.05 (0.06)	−0.02 (0.06)	−0.46 (0.28)	−0.45 (0.28)	0.11 (0.18)	0.37*** (0.11)
Urbanization (%)	0.37** (0.13)		0.18 (0.13)	0.17 (0.13)	0.22* (0.09)	−0.03 (0.04)
State FE	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes
Num. obs.	944	944	946	946	942	942
R ²	0.11	0.12	0.17	0.17	0.10	0.08
Adj. R ²	0.10	0.11	0.15	0.15	0.08	0.06

Note: *** $p < 0.001$; ** $p < 0.01$; * $p < 0.05$; † $p < 0.1$

Table B5: Replicating Main Models from Table 1 with only rural counties (counties that contained no urban area of at least 2500 residents in 1860).

	1865–1965	1865–1899	1900–1916	1917–1965	1900–1916
	(1)	(2)	(3)	(4)	(5)
<i>Group Contestation</i>					
Black Population (%)	0.45*** (0.12)	0.13* (0.06)	0.55*** (0.13)	0.14 (0.09)	0.51*** (0.13)
Black Literacy (%)	0.04 (0.13)	0.02 (0.05)	0.27* (0.13)	−0.07 (0.12)	0.28* (0.13)
Political Competition (0/1)			−0.07 (0.06)		−0.20* (0.09)
(Black Pop) × (Political Competition)					0.41 (0.25)
<i>Memorialization of Loss</i>					
Excess War Mortality (%)	0.12† (0.07)	0.01 (0.03)	0.08 (0.09)	0.01 (0.04)	0.08 (0.09)
Major Battle Site (0/1)	−0.00 (0.09)	−0.00 (0.05)	0.05 (0.07)	−0.07 (0.05)	0.06 (0.07)
<i>White Supply Side</i>					
White Population Density (Log)	0.22*** (0.04)	0.05** (0.02)	0.13** (0.04)	0.12*** (0.03)	0.13*** (0.04)
Adult White Male Literacy (%)	0.53* (0.24)	0.04 (0.10)	0.40 (0.28)	0.31 (0.27)	0.42 (0.27)
UDC Chapter (0/1)			0.10** (0.04)	0.02 (0.02)	0.11** (0.04)
White Land Gini (0-1)	−0.00 (0.20)	0.02 (0.07)	−0.47† (0.26)	0.34 (0.22)	−0.45† (0.26)
State FE	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes
Num. obs.	860	860	862	861	862
R ²	0.18	0.07	0.17	0.07	0.17
Adj. R ²	0.16	0.05	0.15	0.05	0.15

Note: Conley standard errors with a 100 km spatial cutoff are reported in parentheses. *** $p < 0.001$; ** $p < 0.01$; * $p < 0.05$; † $p < 0.1$

Table B6: Replicating Main Models from Table 1 with only prewar (pre-treatment) regressor values.

	1865–1965	1865–1899	1900–1916	1917–1965
	(1)	(2)	(3)	(4)
<i>Group Contestation</i>				
Black Population (%)	0.51*** (0.12)	0.18** (0.06)	0.34** (0.12)	0.08 (0.08)
Black Literacy (%)	0.06 (0.12)	0.03 (0.05)	0.23 [†] (0.12)	−0.10 (0.08)
<i>Memorialization of Loss</i>				
Excess War Mortality (%)	0.08 (0.07)	0.05 (0.04)	0.02 (0.08)	0.04 (0.05)
Major Battle Site (0/1)	0.05 (0.08)	0.03 (0.05)	0.15** (0.06)	0.05 (0.05)
<i>White Supply Side</i>				
White Population Density (Log)	0.19*** (0.04)	0.08*** (0.02)	0.10** (0.03)	0.06* (0.02)
Adult White Male Literacy (%)	0.48* (0.23)	0.02 (0.10)	0.48* (0.23)	0.11 (0.18)
White Land Gini (0-1)	0.08 (0.21)	0.06 (0.08)	−0.08 (0.16)	0.22 (0.15)
Urbanization (%)	0.04 (0.19)	0.55*** (0.16)	0.01 (0.21)	0.29 (0.18)
State FE	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes
Num. obs.	944	944	944	944
R ²	0.17	0.17	0.12	0.07
Adj. R ²	0.16	0.15	0.11	0.05

Note: Conley standard errors with a 100 km spatial cutoff are reported in parentheses. *** $p < 0.001$; ** $p < 0.01$; * $p < 0.05$; [†] $p < 0.1$

Table B7: Replicating Main Models from Table 1 with measure of memorials based on (log-transformed) count of monuments (rather than binary indicator). DV = Natural logarithm of the number of monuments for each period (add one to escape zeroes).

	1865–1965	1865–1899	1900–1916	1917–1965	1900–1916
	(1)	(2)	(3)	(4)	(5)
<i>Group Contestation</i>					
Black Population (%)	0.39*** (0.10)	0.13** (0.04)	0.38*** (0.09)	0.14 [†] (0.07)	0.35*** (0.09)
Black Literacy (%)	0.11 (0.11)	0.02 (0.04)	0.14 [†] (0.09)	−0.04 (0.08)	0.15 [†] (0.09)
Political Competition (0/1)			−0.01 (0.04)		−0.12 [†] (0.06)
(Black Pop) × (Political Competition)					0.34 [†] (0.18)
<i>Memorialization of Loss</i>					
Excess War Mortality (%)	0.05 (0.07)	0.04 (0.03)	−0.03 (0.06)	0.01 (0.05)	−0.03 (0.07)
Major Battle Site (0/1)	0.15 [†] (0.08)	0.03 (0.05)	0.09** (0.03)	0.07 (0.06)	0.09* (0.04)
<i>White Supply Side</i>					
White Population Density (Log)	0.16*** (0.03)	0.06*** (0.02)	0.07** (0.02)	0.09*** (0.02)	0.07** (0.02)
Adult White Male Literacy (%)	0.45* (0.18)	0.03 (0.07)	0.21 (0.23)	0.20 (0.19)	0.23 (0.22)
UDC Chapter (0/1)			0.08** (0.03)	0.00 (0.02)	0.09** (0.03)
White Land Gini (0-1)	0.08 (0.19)	0.05 (0.06)	−0.36 [†] (0.20)	0.23 (0.18)	−0.35 [†] (0.20)
Urbanization (%)	0.64* (0.26)	0.45*** (0.12)	0.24* (0.10)	0.28** (0.09)	0.23* (0.10)
State FE	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes
Num. obs.	944	944	946	944	946
R ²	0.21	0.17	0.19	0.15	0.19
Adj. R ²	0.19	0.15	0.17	0.13	0.17

Note: Conley standard errors with a 100 km spatial cutoff are reported in parentheses. *** $p < 0.001$; ** $p < 0.01$; * $p < 0.05$; [†] $p < 0.1$

Table B8: Replicating Main Models from Table 1 with expanded definition of memorials. DV = If any of the three main types of memorials (monuments, public buildings, or schools) was present in each period of analysis.

	1865–1965	1865–1899	1900–1916	1917–1965	1900–1916
	(1)	(2)	(3)	(4)	(5)
<i>Group Contestation</i>					
Black Population (%)	0.46*** (0.11)	0.20*** (0.06)	0.51*** (0.12)	0.09 (0.10)	0.48*** (0.12)
Black Literacy (%)	0.09 (0.12)	0.02 (0.05)	0.25* (0.12)	−0.06 (0.13)	0.26* (0.12)
Political Competition (0/1)			−0.02 (0.06)		−0.13† (0.07)
(Black Pop) × (Political Competition)					0.36† (0.21)
<i>Memorialization of Loss</i>					
Excess War Mortality (%)	0.06 (0.07)	0.05 (0.04)	0.00 (0.08)	−0.01 (0.05)	0.00 (0.08)
Major Battle Site (0/1)	0.08 (0.06)	0.02 (0.05)	0.08 (0.05)	0.10† (0.05)	0.08 (0.05)
<i>White Supply Side</i>					
White Population Density (Log)	0.20*** (0.04)	0.08*** (0.02)	0.07* (0.03)	0.10*** (0.02)	0.07** (0.03)
Adult White Male Literacy (%)	0.43† (0.23)	−0.01 (0.10)	0.21 (0.31)	0.28 (0.21)	0.23 (0.31)
UDC Chapter (0/1)			0.11** (0.04)	0.07* (0.03)	0.11** (0.04)
White Land Gini (0-1)	−0.01 (0.19)	0.06 (0.08)	−0.55† (0.29)	0.23 (0.21)	−0.55† (0.29)
Urbanization (%)	0.09 (0.15)	0.53*** (0.15)	0.23† (0.12)	0.23* (0.10)	0.22† (0.12)
State FE	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes
Num. obs.	944	944	946	944	946
R ²	0.18	0.16	0.17	0.14	0.17
Adj. R ²	0.16	0.15	0.15	0.13	0.16

Note: Conley standard errors with a 100 km spatial cutoff are reported in parentheses. *** $p < 0.001$; ** $p < 0.01$; * $p < 0.05$; † $p < 0.1$

Table B9: Replicating Main Models from Table 1 with Slaveowners share of adult White males in 1860 (in place of Black population share 1860).

	1865–1965	1865–1899	1900–1916	1917–1965	1900–1916
	(1)	(2)	(3)	(4)	(5)
<i>Group Contestation</i>					
Slaveowners 1860 (%)	0.75*** (0.16)	0.26** (0.10)	0.52** (0.17)	0.25* (0.11)	0.40* (0.16)
Black Literacy (%)	0.06 (0.12)	0.03 (0.05)	0.13 (0.11)	−0.04 (0.11)	0.14 (0.11)
Political Competition (0/1)			−0.01 (0.06)		−0.25** (0.08)
(Slaveowners 1860) × (Political Competition)					0.90** (0.30)
<i>Memorialization of Loss</i>					
Excess War Mortality (%)	0.09 (0.06)	0.05 (0.04)	0.01 (0.08)	0.02 (0.04)	0.01 (0.08)
Major Battle Site (0/1)	0.05 (0.07)	0.03 (0.05)	0.09† (0.05)	0.03 (0.05)	0.09† (0.05)
<i>White Supply Side</i>					
White Population Density (Log)	0.18*** (0.03)	0.07*** (0.02)	0.05† (0.03)	0.08*** (0.02)	0.05* (0.02)
Adult White Male Literacy (%)	0.50* (0.22)	0.03 (0.10)	0.46 (0.29)	0.19 (0.21)	0.52† (0.28)
UDC Chapter (0/1)			0.12** (0.04)	0.02 (0.02)	0.12** (0.04)
White Land Gini (0-1)	0.26 (0.21)	0.12 (0.09)	−0.28 (0.24)	0.17 (0.19)	−0.26 (0.24)
Urbanization (%)	0.06 (0.19)	0.55*** (0.16)	0.28* (0.13)	0.20* (0.09)	0.26* (0.13)
State FE	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes
Num. obs.	944	944	943	941	943
R ²	0.18	0.17	0.16	0.10	0.16
Adj. R ²	0.16	0.15	0.14	0.08	0.14

Note: Conley standard errors with a 100 km spatial cutoff are reported in parentheses. *** $p < 0.001$; ** $p < 0.01$; * $p < 0.05$; † $p < 0.1$

Table B10: Replicating Results from Main Models Table 1 using 1860 County Borders.

	1865–1965	1865–1899	1900–1916	1917–1965
	(1)	(2)	(3)	(4)
<i>Group Contestation</i>				
Black Population (%)	0.48*** (0.13)	0.23** (0.08)	0.26 [†] (0.14)	0.05 (0.10)
<i>Memorialization of Loss</i>				
Excess War Mortality (%)	0.08 (0.08)	0.01 (0.04)	0.02 (0.07)	0.08 (0.07)
Major Battle Site (0/1)	0.02 (0.07)	0.03 (0.05)	0.10 [†] (0.06)	0.11 (0.07)
<i>White Supply Side</i>				
White Population Density (Log)	0.20*** (0.04)	0.13*** (0.02)	0.11** (0.04)	0.08** (0.03)
Adult White Male Literacy (%)	0.61* (0.27)	0.11 (0.14)	0.72** (0.26)	0.25 (0.23)
White Land Gini (0-1)	0.15 (0.24)	0.48*** (0.12)	−0.06 (0.20)	0.50* (0.20)
State FE	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes
Num. obs.	752	752	752	752
R ²	0.21	0.17	0.15	0.08
Adj. R ²	0.19	0.15	0.14	0.06

Note: *** $p < 0.001$; ** $p < 0.01$; * $p < 0.05$; [†] $p < 0.1$.

Table B11: Replicating Main Results from Table 1 with standard errors clustered by state.

	1865–1965	1865–1899	1900–1916	1917–1965	1900–1916
	(1)	(2)	(3)	(4)	(5)
<i>Group Contestation</i>					
Black Population (%)	0.51** (0.15)	0.18** (0.05)	0.50*** (0.10)	0.13 (0.08)	0.46** (0.12)
Black Literacy (%)	0.06 (0.15)	0.03 (0.04)	0.21 (0.13)	−0.06 (0.11)	0.22 (0.13)
Political Competition (0/1)			−0.02 (0.06)		−0.16 (0.12)
(Black Pop) × (Political Competition)					0.43 (0.27)
<i>Memorialization of Loss</i>					
Excess War Mortality (%)	0.08 (0.06)	0.05 (0.03)	0.02 (0.06)	0.02 (0.04)	0.01 (0.06)
Major Battle Site (0/1)	0.05 (0.06)	0.03 (0.06)	0.10* (0.04)	0.03 (0.04)	0.09* (0.04)
<i>White Supply Side</i>					
White Population Density (Log)	0.19*** (0.04)	0.08* (0.02)	0.07 (0.05)	0.08† (0.04)	0.08 (0.05)
Adult White Male Literacy (%)	0.48 (0.27)	0.02 (0.13)	0.21 (0.31)	0.22 (0.18)	0.23 (0.31)
UDC Chapter (0/1)			0.11** (0.03)	0.03 (0.02)	0.11** (0.03)
White Land Gini (0-1)	0.08 (0.22)	0.06 (0.06)	−0.52† (0.25)	0.13 (0.27)	−0.51† (0.26)
Urbanization (%)	0.04 (0.28)	0.55† (0.25)	0.21 (0.19)	0.18 (0.10)	0.20 (0.19)
State FE	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes
Num. obs.	944	944	946	944	946
R ²	0.17	0.17	0.17	0.10	0.17
Adj. R ²	0.16	0.15	0.15	0.08	0.15

Note: *** $p < 0.001$; ** $p < 0.01$; * $p < 0.05$; † $p < 0.1$

Table B12: Replicating the Main Models in Table 1 with Conley Spatial HAC Standard Errors with a Distance Cutoff of 200 KM.

	1865–1965	1865–1899	1900–1916	1917–1965	1900–1916
	(1)	(2)	(3)	(4)	(5)
<i>Group Contestation</i>					
Black Population (%)	0.51*** (0.11)	0.18*** (0.04)	0.50*** (0.13)	0.13 [†] (0.07)	0.46*** (0.12)
Black Literacy (%)	0.06 (0.15)	0.03 (0.05)	0.21** (0.07)	−0.06 (0.11)	0.22** (0.07)
Political Competition (0/1)			−0.02 (0.06)		−0.16 (0.10)
(Black Pop) × (Political Competition)					0.43 [†] (0.23)
<i>Memorialization of Loss</i>					
Excess War Mortality (%)	0.08 (0.08)	0.05 (0.03)	0.02 (0.09)	0.02 (0.05)	0.01 (0.09)
Major Battle Site (0/1)	0.05 (0.06)	0.03 (0.05)	0.10* (0.05)	0.03 (0.04)	0.09* (0.05)
<i>White Supply Side</i>					
White Population Density (Log)	0.19*** (0.03)	0.08*** (0.02)	0.07 [†] (0.04)	0.08** (0.03)	0.08 [†] (0.04)
Adult White Male Literacy (%)	0.48* (0.19)	0.02 (0.11)	0.21 (0.30)	0.22 (0.18)	0.23 (0.30)
UDC Chapter (0/1)			0.11* (0.04)	0.03 (0.02)	0.11** (0.04)
White Land Gini (0-1)	0.08 (0.19)	0.06 (0.07)	−0.52 [†] (0.29)	0.13 (0.22)	−0.51 [†] (0.30)
Urbanization (%)	0.04 (0.22)	0.55** (0.18)	0.21 (0.16)	0.18 [†] (0.11)	0.20 (0.16)
State FE	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes
Num. obs.	944	944	946	944	946
R ²	0.17	0.17	0.17	0.10	0.17
Adj. R ²	0.16	0.15	0.15	0.08	0.15

Note: Conley standard errors with a 200 km spatial cutoff are reported in parentheses. *** $p < 0.001$; ** $p < 0.01$; * $p < 0.05$; [†] $p < 0.1$

Table B13: Replicating Main Results from Model 5, Table 1 with Alternative Logics included.

	1900–1916						
	(5a)	(5b)	(5c)	(5d)	(5e)	(5f)	(5g)
<i>Group Contestation</i>							
Black Population (%)	0.44*	0.45***	0.47***	0.50***	0.39***	0.45***	0.41***
	(0.22)	(0.12)	(0.12)	(0.12)	(0.12)	(0.12)	(0.12)
Black Literacy (%)	0.21	0.24*	0.23†	0.21†	0.22†	0.22†	0.18
	(0.15)	(0.12)	(0.12)	(0.12)	(0.12)	(0.11)	(0.12)
Political Competition (0/1)	−0.31**	−0.15†	−0.16†	−0.15†	−0.16†	−0.16†	−0.15†
	(0.10)	(0.08)	(0.09)	(0.08)	(0.08)	(0.08)	(0.08)
(Black Pop) * (Political Competition)	0.63†	0.42†	0.44†	0.41†	0.44†	0.43†	0.39†
	(0.34)	(0.23)	(0.25)	(0.23)	(0.24)	(0.23)	(0.22)
<i>Memorialization of Loss</i>							
Excess War Mortality (%)	−0.02	0.01	0.01	0.01	0.01	0.01	0.03
	(0.14)	(0.08)	(0.08)	(0.08)	(0.08)	(0.08)	(0.08)
Major Battle Site (0/1)	0.05	0.09†	0.10*	0.08	0.10†	0.08	0.09†
	(0.07)	(0.05)	(0.05)	(0.05)	(0.05)	(0.05)	(0.05)
<i>White Supply Side</i>							
White Population Density (Log)	0.11*	0.07**	0.08**	0.08**	0.06*	0.08**	0.07*
	(0.04)	(0.03)	(0.03)	(0.03)	(0.03)	(0.03)	(0.03)
Adult White Male Literacy (%)	0.77	0.18	0.22	0.24	0.33	0.22	0.22
	(0.61)	(0.31)	(0.30)	(0.30)	(0.28)	(0.30)	(0.30)
UDC Chapter (0/1)	0.09	0.10**	0.11**	0.11**	0.10*	0.10**	0.10**
	(0.06)	(0.04)	(0.04)	(0.04)	(0.04)	(0.04)	(0.04)
White Land Gini (0-1)	−0.42	−0.49†	−0.51†	−0.55*	−0.38	−0.62*	−0.52†
	(0.48)	(0.27)	(0.27)	(0.27)	(0.24)	(0.26)	(0.27)
Urbanization (%)	−0.10	0.20	0.19	0.16	0.27†	0.16	0.17
	(0.13)	(0.12)	(0.13)	(0.13)	(0.14)	(0.13)	(0.13)
<i>Alternative Logics</i>							
Pension Share 1900 (%)	3.10						
	(4.52)						
Any Lynchings pre-1900 (0/1)		0.06†					
		(0.03)					
White Tenants / Laborer Comp. 1900 (0-0.5)			−0.04				
			(0.13)				
Black Occupation Score 1900 (0-80)				0.01†			
				(0.00)			
White Occupation Score Gini 1900 (0-1)					1.25		
					(0.92)		
Black Occupation Troops 1865-80 (0/1)						0.10*	
						(0.04)	
Total Federal Troops 1865-80 (0/1)							0.10**
							(0.03)
State FE	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes
Num. obs.	517	946	946	946	946	946	946
R ²	0.16	0.17	0.17	0.17	0.17	0.17	0.18
Adj. R ²	0.13	0.15	0.15	0.15	0.15	0.15	0.16

Note: Conley standard errors with a 100 km spatial cutoff are reported in parentheses. *** $p < 0.001$; ** $p < 0.01$; * $p < 0.05$; † $p < 0.1$

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